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SOCIAL EXCHANGE

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INTRODUCTION

We have long been aware that exchange of goods, services, etc plays a vital part in our own social life as well as in the life of other peoples we study, and in fact, as Belshaw states (16, p. 7), that exchange penetrates through the social fabric and may be thought of as a network holding society together. Such awareness, however, was not translated into systematic thinking—with a few exceptions—until very recently. As for these exceptions, Ekeh (37, pp. 21–24) cites Sir James Frazer's *Folklore in the Old Testament* (49), published in 1919, and Chavannes's 1884 *Studies in Sociology* as representing early thinking on social exchange. While, as Ekeh points out, one may well find in these works features of exchange theory propounded by later theorists, their direct impact upon modern thinkers of social exchange is not very clear; it appears that they were the Mendels of exchange theory in that although they were on the right track, they were forgotten by more recent theorists who had to "rediscover" the concept.

Three anthropologists stand out as having had disproportionate influence in the development of exchange theory. The first is Mauss, who has carried on the Durkheimian French intellectual tradition and applied to it the phenomena of gift-giving in his essay on gift, first published in 1925 (89, 90). In seeing gift exchange as an obligatory act, Mauss focuses on normative rules. Pervasiveness of gift-giving in primitive societies leads him to propose the concept of "total prestation." These ideas provide some of the conceptual ingredients for Lévi-Strauss, the second major contributor to the anthropology of exchange, to develop a theory of cousin marriage (78, 80). Basic to the theory is the distinction between restricted exchange, which is only capable of connecting pairs of social groups, and generalized exchange, which integrates indefinite numbers of groups. The third major contributor is Sahlins (110, 111), whose conceptual distinction among *generalized exchange,* which (not to be confused with Lévi-Strauss's concept) parallels Mauss's "total prestation," *balanced exchange,* which is epitomized by monetized market exchange, and *negative exchange,* which is characterized in extreme by "something for nothing" stealth, has been widely taken up, applied, and tested with ethnographic data.

There are several empirically oriented studies which are to a major extent organized around the exchange concept. Probably the best known among them is Malinowski's analysis of the Trobriand kula ring (87). In more recent years, Schwimmer (116) has conceptualized Orokaiva data in terms of a cycle of exchange which is mediated by objects such as land, pigs, etc, and causes social relations to move back and forth between hostility and reconciliation. Although very different in certain crucial details, both Strathern (127) and Young (132) see big-men's competition for status in Mt. Hagen and Kalauna, respectively, in Melanesia as played out in the arena of ceremonial exchange, known as *moka* among the Hagener and *abutu* in Kalauna. It is interesting that all these works and others (92, 94) which take exchange as an organizing concept come from Melanesia. Outside Melanesia, Kapferer (65) presents data from a factory from Africa, giving us a detailed and first-rate analysis in the framework of social exchange primarily derived from Blau (19). Barth's early analysis of Norwegian fishing crews and Swat Pathans (7, 8), couched in "transactional" terms, is essentially a study in social exchange, as is made evident in a volume edited by Kapferer (67), in which Barth's transactional approach is further developed and revised by a number of authors. Finally, Belshaw (16) in the mid 1960s and H. Schneider (115) some 10 years later have devoted considerable space to summarizing theoretical works and empirical studies on social exchange.

Turning to major contributions from social psychology, Homans and Blau systematically build their theories from experimental psychology and economies, Homans relying on psychology more than Blau, and Blau making more serious use of economics than Homans, as seen in his use of the concepts of marginal utility and indifference curves and his frequent reference to Boulding (23). Boulding himself has recently offered a theory of social exchange (25). Application of economic theory is further carried forth by Heath (56), whose central concept for building an exchange model is rationality. Less influential, but still systematic in constructing models of exchange, are Burns (28), Emerson (40, 41), Foa & Foa (44), Gergen (50), and Meeker (91).

In addition to these original contributions, a series of critiques of major works in social exchange have appeared. Since they are all in social psychology, I shall limit myself to merely mentioning them. *Sociological Inquiry* published a special issue dedicated to critiquing Homans' theory (124). This was later revised and published as a separate volume under the editorship of Turk & Simpson (130). Mulkay (93) has published a critical analysis of Homans' and Blau's theories of exchange. Finally, Ekeh (37) provides us with a penetrating and contrastive examination of the intellectual roots, philosophical foundations, and theoretical structure of Homans' and Lévi-Strauss's theories.

While psychological literature on exchange abounds, most of it, particularly experimental findings, are couched in such hypothetical terms that they are scarcely useful to anthropologists in helping analyze real-world data. These will be by and large omitted from this review. On the other hand, anthropologists can benefit from theoretical contributions in the social psychology of exchange and should be encouraged to be conversant with that segment of the literature which has potential relevance to analysis of real-life situations. Some of these materials will be reviewed here.

DOMAIN OF INVESTIGATION

There is temptation for anyone engrossed in construction of a theory to make it as comprehensive as possible. When this is carried too far, however, there is the danger of making the theory tautological. That is, when a supposed counter example is presented, concepts of the theory are often redefined and stretched to fit the facts. Altruistic and coercive acts are such "test cases" lying at the fringes of the domain of social exchange acts. This distinction among "altruistic," "exchange," and "coercive" parallels Etzioni's "normative," "remunerative," and "coercive" (42).

We may begin our consideration with Boulding's conceptualization of economic, political, and social systems (24). He suggests that human behavior, insofar as it involves necessity, chance, and freedom, should be seen as constituting population systems, exchange systems, threat systems, learning systems, and finally love systems, the last being added only tentatively because it has not been as well understood. What Boulding does here is to propose to exclude altruism (Boulding's "love") and coercion (his "threat") from the realm of social exchange, in contradistinction to many exchange writers who include either or both of these elements in their models. For example, Mauss (89, p. 71) regards as untenable Malinowski's contention (87, pp. 177–80) that some gifts are "pure gifts" not requiring reciprocation. For in Mauss's scheme there cannot be gifts which are "pure," i.e. which do not call for return, since he posits three obligations surrounding gifts, namely, to give, to receive, and to return. Meeker (91, p. 480) also considers altruism as a type of exchange. For her, altruism is an exchange rule which assigns maximum value to the total payoff of the receiver, which implies that in its limiting case, one would receive nothing at all for what he gives. This is tantamount to saying that social exchange can take place when there is no exchange taking place.

Blau acknowledges (19, p. 16) that there are "virtual saints" who "selflessly work for others without any thought of reward and even without expecting gratitude," but excludes such altruistic acts from the domain of exchange. Such saintly behavior may not be as rare as Blau thinks, if Titmuss's report of the motives of hundreds of blood donors in England is true. According to him, for most donors "there is no formal contract, no legal bond, no situation of power, domination, constraint, or compulsion, no sense of shame or guilt, no gratitude imperative, no need for penitence, no money, and no explicit guarantee of or wish for a reward or return gift" (129, p. 89).

Heath takes a stand that is essentially Blau's with respect to freely given gifts, excluding them from his consideration of social exchange, for "by definition these gifts are not given with an eye either to past or to future benefits but given out of a sense of altruism or of a wish to help those in need (56, p. 60)." In other words, from the point of view which Heath adopts—of rational choice and maximization as a conscious strategy—altruism does not make any sense. Gregory (54, p. 83), too, proposes a category of acts involving no obligation, asserting that there should be a place in the anthropological lexicon for such concepts as "pure gifts."

Finally, Simpson (121, p. 14) makes a clear and concise statement regarding this issue: "our theorists all indicate that altruistic behavior can be psychologically profitable; but its rewards come from inside the altruist himself and not from the beneficiary of the altruistic behavior, or else it is not altruism at all but approval seeking. There is no room for altruism in a theory that restricts the source of rewards to one's interaction partner."

At issue in this controversy is the status of intent on the one hand and of cultural norm on the other. The first question is whether or not, when people offer gifts or services, they indeed mean it to be a pure gift without any expectation of return. If the answer is "yes," and if the exchange model is to be based on a motivational system, the act should be excluded from the domain of exchange. We must not be too hasty, however. For as Parkin notes (101, p. 172), the ideal of altruism can act as an effective cover for utilitarian interests. Thus we should examine the case carefully both at the face value of what is proclaimed to be the intent of the give-and-take and also what is at the subterranean though not necessarily subconscious level of a self-serving scheme.

If one's interest is in constructing a systemic model, ignoring native's intent or taking native's intent only as partial data, then there is room to include free gifts and altruistic acts as relevant for the model. For example, native norms may proscribe desire to receive returns for gifts to certain categories of individuals, e.g. parents from their children for providing sustenance. Yet the norm of the same culture may demand the recipient of the gift to return the favor, e.g. for children to give some kind of return for the sustenance received. As a social system *qua* system, reciprocation does take place in such a situation, and the case should certainly be included in the model.

Turning now to the opposite end of the continuum from altruism, while Boulding admonishes us to leave coercion or threat out of exchange systems, many exchange theorists have included these and other "negative resources" as constituting elements of social exchange. Homans, for example, speaks of exchanging punishment to one another (59, p. 57). Blau, too, refers to punishment for wrongdoing, imprisonment of criminals, or employment office workers penalizing uncooperative clients (19, pp. 227–30). Sahlins (111, pp. 148–49), in his well-cited work on the model of primitive exchange, defines "negative reciprocity" as "the attempt to get something for nothing with impunity, the several forms of appropriation, transactions opened and conducted toward net utilitarian advantage," and in this rather broad and amorphous classification of acts, Sahlins includes "various degrees of cunning, guile, stealth, and violence to the finesse of a well-conducted horse-raid." The "flow" of resources here may be, as he admits, "one way."

What these examples indicate is that "negative" exchange as a category includes a variety of heterogeneous phenomena. It includes (*a*) physical coercion or threat thereof, (*b*) "something for nothing" stealth, and (*c*) withdrawal of positive rewards. Among them, I believe it is best to leave out of our consideration Sahlins' "one-way flow" of "something for nothing" and genuine physical coercion (and threat thereof). The former should be left out because it lacks the basic element of return, and the latter because it denies volition and hence room for operation of strategy, to be discussed below.

Concepts and constructs of exchange models are largely created for exchange of positive rewards—desired resources only if because, as Homans says (59, p. 57), "the exchange of rewards takes a larger share in social behavior than the exchange of punishments." Accordingly, none of the five propositions on human exchange on which Homans elaborates (59, Chap. 4) has to do directly with negative exchange. Ethnographic cases of exchange, too, by and large concern gift-giving, payment of bride price, potlatching, giving of armbands and necklaces in the kula ring, etc, which all illustrate exchange of desired goods. Conceptualization of negative exchange thus lags far behind that of positive exchange and is a task left for the future.

CONTEXT, NORM, RULES, AND STRATEGY

At this juncture I would like to introduce the concepts of *sociocultural context, the norm of reciprocity, cultural rules,* and *strategy.*

1. *Sociocultural context,* or the abbreviated term "cultural context," refers to the cultural and social environment within which a model of social exchange is constructed. It is that part of an exchange model which is assumed as given insofar as the model is concerned; it is the environment within which the model is embedded. No exchange model can operate in a cultural vacuum. Specification of the cultural context is what brings life to an exchange model. When Salisbury (113, p. 43) refers to "microeconomic analysis of transactions within a single moral community," as against transactions across moral communities, and when Kapferer (66, p. 12) exhorts us to pay attention "to particular cultural understandings which underlie maximization or any other tactic or strategy," they are pointing to the importance of cultural context in understanding exchange behavior.

To illustrate the concept with data from India, the jajmani system has often been analyzed as an exchange system in which higher and lower castes exchange goods and services (88, 97). In analyzing the give-and-take between jajmans and kamins, inequality in caste ranking as god-given, the ritual superiority of the Braman, specific caste ranking, economic superiority of Bramans stemming from ownership of land and other forms of wealth (in certain cases), paternalistic relationship obtaining between particular jajmans and their kamins, the cultural ascriptions of hereditary occupations to various castes constitute some of the major elements of the social and cultural context, without which discussion of exchanges between jajman and kamin is meaningless (70).

In short, the sociocultural context sets the stage on which participants can act out their exchange behavior according to "the script," i.e. dictates of the exchange model. Without the stage, actors cannot act; without the cultural context, exchange analysis is vacuous.

2. Gouldner, in his seminal work on the *norm of reciprocity,* posited the universal norm of reciprocity, which according to him, "makes two interrelated, minimal demands: 1. people should help those who have helped them, and 2. people should not injure those who have helped them" (53, p. 171). The norm as stated by Gouldner is an etic concept and an abstraction in approximation of culture-specific norms exhorting participants to reciprocate. These culture-specific norms are stated in varying degrees of explicitness. In the Philippines, the Tagalog concept of *utang na loob* (56, 58, 68) and the Tausug concept of *buddi* (69, pp. 65–66) both imply moral compulsion to return a favor. Similarly, the Japanese *on* and *giri* are concepts

implying normative necessity of one who has received a favor to give an appropriate return (12, 13, 74). American culture does not have an explicit normative concept of reciprocity which is as salient as the Tagalog *utang na loob* or the Japanese *on* and *giri.* That does not at all mean that Americans lack the norm. As exemplified in numerous experimental and field studies (e.g. 19, 59, 126), reciprocity is a powerful norm which plays a critical role in structuring the American society.

3. *Rules of exchange* refer to specific cultural rules governing what should or may be given or returned in a given type of situation defined in terms of the specific relationship between the participants, occasion for the exchange, etc. In contrast to the norm of reciprocity, which is a generalized expectation to reciprocate irrespective of what or how much is given or returned, rules of exchange specify what the norm leaves undefined.

In Hagen society, for example, the main items in *moka* exchange are specified as "pigs, six kinds of shell valuables, bird of paradise plumes and other feathers used for decorations, sale, decorating oil, stone axe-blades and hafted stone axes, marsupial furs, and red ochre paint" (127, p. 101). In many East African societies bride price is paid in cattle. These are cultural rules governing exchange behavior. Cultural rules need not define the precise kind and exact amount of goods and services to be given. Instead, generally they prescribe a range of acceptable kinds and quantities of resources. As a return for a dinner party, an American couple has a range of recipes to choose from. A Hagen chief giving a *moka* can vary the quantities of items to be given away. However, there is always a culturally prescribed limit to the range. An American couple cannot normally invite to a hamburger lunch a friend who invited them to a formal dinner and consider the exchange even. Hogbin tells us that a headman in Ontong Java became an object of ridicule by villagers because he was too ostentatious in giving a betrothal for his daughter (57, p. 37).

4. As rules of exchange define what the norm of reciprocity leaves undefined, so does the *strategy of exchange* specify the indeterminate part of cultural rules. Since cultural rules specify a range of possibilities as to what may be given and how it may be given, an individual must make decisions as to the exact content of the resource to be given, its quantity, and the manner of prestation. These decisions are often, if not always, made on the basis of the individual's desire to maximize the opportunity for his benefit/profit.

An individual normally exercises his strategy for a maximum return within the cultural context (which is to say, within the normative and institutional framework of the culture) and within the bounds set by cultural rules (31). It is important to distinguish between cultural rules and strategy. One refers to prescribed conventions, which for participants of a culture are by and large given; the other has to do with the operation of an individual's motivations by which cultural rules are exploited.

Anthropologists interested in exchange are generally concerned with constructing a model which manipulates cultural rules of exchange, such as rules of marriage, whereas social psychologists are interested in discovering strategies individuals use in exchange, either setting aside the question of cultural rules or by choosing a problem where explicit cultural rules do not exist and people behave at the dictates of the norm of reciprocity and within the framework of the cultural context. But such observation also applies to anthropologists interested in uncovering exchange strategies, as Parkins notes:

> The central tenet of transactional analysis, however, appears to be that the maximization of self-interest is an axiomatic and universal feature of the human condition that underlies the exchange nature of social relations. Transactional analysis does not attempt to identify and analyze those social circumstances in which this supposed axiom of human behavior is raised to a level of cultural consciousness and identification (101, p. 173).

TYPOLOGY OF EXCHANGE RELATIONS

1. *Perceived dyadic exchange.* Normally in social exchange, one assumes a relationship to take place between two existing beings (individuals, groups, etc). However, if one were to analyze exchange as taking place strictly on the basis of "Person's" perception as to who "Other" is (to use Homans' jargon), Other need not physically exist as long as Person believes Other exists and behaves accordingly. Indeed, this is the very reason why in many psychological experiments on social exchange, subjects do not interact with any individuals, but are made to believe that they do through devious designs using confederates or simply written messages (presumably coming from subjects' partners, but in fact written before the experiment begins and simply handed over to subjects in outright deceit).

This consideration is relevant to ethnographic accounts of exchange in analyzing interaction with the supernatural world. For example, the Buddhist conception of merit, in which one accumulates merit through contribution to Buddhist institutions, giving of alms, etc, as a way of improving one's karma, implies an exchange relationship with the supernatural world (125). Again, Foster (46, 47) includes dealings with saints in his discussion of "dyadic contract." Although Foster does not formulate the concept in exchange framework, nevertheless the give-and-take of resources between the mortal and a saint and between mortals—in the "colleague" type contract, for that matter—can readily be reinterpreted in the light of exchange theory. In dealing with supernaturals, obviously, a saint's giving of resources such as blessings, curing of disease, bringing good fortune, etc are perceived acts: they are merely perceived by the mortal as a saint's doing. However, insofar as supernaturals are perceived to be real and certain phenomena are perceived as emanating from them as a result of the mortal's propitiation, promise, etc, such interactions are no different in substance from a mortal's interaction with another mortal, and the same theory of exchange should be applicable to both. Lebra's study (75) shows how reciprocity-based supernatural sanctions can effectively change human behavior.

2. *Motivational vs institutional.* Earlier we have referred to those interested primarily in elucidating strategy of exchange based on motivational process, compared with those interested in cultural rules constituting institutional process. I have elaborated on this distinction as "individualistic" vs "collectivistic" (37). Taking up Homans and Lévi-Strauss as representatives of these respective approaches, Ekeh

derives their approaches from the differing intellectual climates of Anglo-America and France. To him, the traditions of the individualistic and collectivistic approaches are traceable back to Calvinism and Catholicism respectively, Calvinism being characterized by atomistic world view, conception of the society as being posterior to the individual, realism, sobriety, and rationalism, and Catholicism by an organic world view, conception of the society as being prior to the individual, symbolism, emotionalism, and mysticism (37, pp. 14–19). It is these differences which are manifested in Homans' theory of social exchange on the one hand and Lévi-Strauss's on the other.

For Homans, and most social psychologists, social exchange is predicated upon human sentiment, and his theory is a theory of motivation. The starting point as such is obviously the individual. He is concerned with strategies of exchange for maximizing rewards and minimizing costs. Thus it is that Abrahamsson (2) has characterized Homans' utilitarian theory as "hedonistic," true to the Benthamian tradition. For Homans, norms and institutions arise out of the individual behavior, resulting from patterned relationships based on rewards and costs, and are maintained and supported only insofar as they are able to satisfy individuals. As such, Ekeh argues (37, p. 181), Homans' notion of group is derivable from and reducible to individual psychology.

Lévi-Strauss's theory, on the other hand, ignores human sentiment and motivational processes. It is satisfied that motivational processes exist and dictate human action in the form that complies with structural rules. The starting point for Lévi-Strauss is the group, and his concern is not the strategy of action but arrangements and interrelations of cultural rules of exchange and consequences of application of these rules. In all these respects, Lévi-Strauss is starting from a set of premises which at the very least have nothing to do with Homans, according to Homans & Schneider (61), or, as Ekeh would have it, are antithetical to Homans, not allowing any possible meeting ground. Lévi-Strauss's institutional approach has been followed up in a series of writings by Rosman & Rubel (105–108) and by Schwimmer (116).

Is the relation of group to individual to be conceptualized only as antithetical and contradictory? Or is there a possibility of bridging the gap? Several writers, all starting from the individualistic approaches, have proposed ways of dealing with this question. Blau's solution, espoused by Kapferer (65, pp. 6–7), is to posit the concept of "emergent" (19, p. 3): "Emergent properties are essentially relationships between elements in a structure. The relationships are not contained in the elements, though they could not exist without them, and they define the structure." The relationship which develops out of social exchange is emergent, as is the group defined by such relationships. But a crucial difference from Homans' approach is in Blau's contention (19, p. 4) that "the emergent properties of social exchange consequent to this interdependence cannot be accounted for by the psychological processes that motivate the behavior of the partners." Yet, as Ekeh points out (37, p. 185), this concept of emergent group should not be confused with Lévi-Strauss's concept of structure (79), which, derived from Durkheimian sociology, has an existence *sui generis*. As Kapferer notes (66, p. 15), intellectual derivation of the "emergent" concept is rather to be found in George H. Mead's social psychology, especially in his concept of "the definition of situation."

Paine also tries to cope with this "individual vs group" dichotomy by taking a hint from Barth's notion of "incorporation" and developing the concept of "*I* mode of exchange" in contradistinction to the "*T* (for transaction) mode of exchange." According to Paine, in the *I* mode of exchange, "value optimum" is sought for the sum of the partners, whose solidarity may be based on a contract or simply on common prior commitment to a certain value (100, p. 69). This concept closely parallels Meeker's definition of "group gain," namely "an exchange rule that assigns the maximum value to the sum of P's [Person's] and O's [Other's] total payoffs (91, p. 480)."

Somewhat different from the individual-group dichotomy, but still focusing on the same issue of how to conceptualize group in exchange terms, is Heath's distinction (55, p. 30), earlier developed by Kuhn (71) and also by Olson (96), of private and public good: "*A private good is one whose enjoyment can be restricted to those who have paid for it, whereas a public good is one which, if it is provided at all, must be made available to all potential beneficiaries whether they have contributed or not*" (italics original). The conventional consumer good is a private good. The classic example of a public good is national defense, which tax evaders and tax-exempted citizens as well as tax payers equally benefit from. However, in order for the theory of public good to work, according to Olson, there must be in addition "selective incentives" which differentially favor those who contribute more and/or differentially punish those who contribute less or do not contribute. In this system, those who contribute to the group cause most stand to gain most from the group benefit, and those who contribute the least benefit the least, giving rise to a hierarchy of statuses (i.e. differential reward system) in the group, based on the degree of contribution to the welfare of the group. This is essentially tantamount to exchange of prestige and other intangible "status" rewards with material resources, as Leach (73) has argued with respect to marital exchange and Cancian (30) with the Mesoamerican *cargo* system. If we are to use this line of thinking, blood donation in England (129) may be regarded as a public good. When Gregory defines "the expectation of circumstantially balanced reciprocity (ECBR) as "a belief that those having much (or having more) should share with those having none (or having less)" (54, p. 74), he is conceptualizing an exchange relationship between the individual and the community, since expectation of balance is not directed toward any particular individual, but to the pooling of the sum total of community resources. In short, balance is systemic at the group (community) level, not between any two individuals.

Another solution to this problem is offered by Ekeh, who first distinguishes between "mutual reciprocity" and "univocal reciprocity" (37, pp. 205–6), the former being dyadic exchange between two individuals and the latter involving at least three individuals in indirect exchange (to be discussed below). Ekeh's "univocal reciprocity" is somewhat like Lévi-Strauss's "generalized exchange" (80), but is crucially different in one respect. Namely, in generalized exchange there is an ordered transfer of resources from A to B, B to C, etc, and back to A. In Ekeh's univocal reciprocity, there is no such assurance. One can only hope someone would do you a favor of the kind you have done someone else. "If I see burglars in my neighbor's house, I have the duty of doing something about it . . . because I expect *any* neighbor of mine to do the same thing if he sees burglars in my own house. Thus the concept of univocal reciprocity leads directly to the conception of generalized duties and rights" (37, p. 206, italics original). According to Ekeh, it is only this concept of univocal reciprocity which can lead exchange theory to such high-order conceptions as citizenship. Thus Ekeh derives commitment to a group (nation state, in this case) through the concept of generalized duties; but he does not tell us how the concept of generalized duties is obtained through exchange, or whether it is part of the sociocultural context and must be accepted as a given.

3. *Generalized vs balanced exchange.* It was Sahlins (111) who introduced the tripartite division of exchange phenomena: generalized, balanced, and negative reciprocity, these being ends and a midpoint of a continuum. "Generalized reciprocity" here is essentially the same as Mauss's "total prestation" (89, p. 3) and should not be confused with Lévi-Strauss's concept of generalized exchange, which, as will be discussed below, is a different idea altogether. Concerning generalized reciprocity, Sahlins says:

> "the expectation of a direct material return is unseemly. At best it is implicit. The material side of the transaction is repressed by the social . . . the counter is not stipulated by time, quantity, or quality, the expectation of reciprocity is indefinite . . . Receiving goods lays on a diffuse obligation to reciprocate when necessary to the donor and/or possibly for the recipient. The requital thus may be very soon, but then again it may be never" (111, p. 147).

Some of these descriptive features verge on pure altruism, as when Sahlins refers to the suckling of children as an extreme case, or when he admits "a sustained one-way flow of goods for a long period," suggesting that balancing of give-and-take is of little concern. I submit that in the long run, there is probably more balancing than meets the eye. For one thing, as I indicated above, even though it may be quite unseemly for the giver to expect a return, the receiver may be fully expected to return. Thus the imbalance from the perspective of the giver may well be corrected to a large measure from the receiver's perspective. A counter case given by Pryor & Graburn (104) will be discussed below.

In contrast to generalized reciprocity, balanced reciprocity is characterized by precise balance: "the reciprocation is the customary equivalent of the thing received and is without delay. . . . Balanced reciprocity may be more loosely applied to transactions which stipulate returns of commensurate worth or utility within a finite and narrow period" (111, p. 148). This distinction is to some extent echoed in Lebra's conception of exchange (76, p. 550). She uses the term "exchange" in a generic sense, and under it distinguishes between "market exchange" and "reciprocity," where the latter is characterized by "actor-loaded" or "socially charged" exchange. If we regard Lebra's distinction as being ends of a continuum, her pair of concepts parallel Sahlins' generalized-balanced pair. Sahlins' distinction between "generalized" and "balanced" also parallels Parkin's similar distinction between "altruistic" and "negotiable" ideologies of transaction. At one point Parkin (101, p. 172) equates his "negotiable" with Sahlins' "negative." But Parkin's conception of "negotiable" as everything having its price and having to be paid for (p. 187) is every bit like Sahlins' "balanced," and scarcely like the "something for nothing" negative exchange which Sahlins speaks of.

Sahlins offers the generalized and balanced reciprocity as an end and a midpoint of a continuum, implying, in his evolutionary, global-comparative thinking, different cultures to fall in different places along the continuum. But within a given space-time coordinate called a culture, different kinds of exchange patterns may be observable at the same time. It is not clear in such a situation whether exchange transactions are supposed to vary infinitely along the spectrum or whether they cluster and come in discrete types, as I think they do, representing separate spheres of exchange (to be discussed below).

Sahlins identifies the three variables of kinship distance, sociability, and generosity as determining the mode of exchange along the continuum of "generalized" through "balanced" to "negative" exchange. Lebra (76) criticizes Sahlins for treating these three variables as correlating in one-to-one fashion. She points out (76, p. 552) that "these variables are conceived as of unidimensional quantity progressing from the plus extreme to the minus extreme, whereas special attention should have been paid to the qualitatively different values involved in the variables, especially in sociability." Thirdly, Lebra feels that Sahlins' model suffers from not considering the interaction of two parties, and contingency of the actor's behavior upon the alter's, as Sahlins concentrates his attention upon the actor's behavior alone.

Many workers have used Sahlins' model as a framework of analysis for their own data (e.g. 12, 14, 34, 62, 64, 98) or to test it with their own field data. I shall review a few of the empirical tests. Among them, Brady's and Dama's tests only partially validate Sahlin's hypothesis. Subjecting the hypothesis to test with data from Ellice Islands, Brady concludes (26, p. 314) that "moderate support has been given for Sahlins' provisional hypothesis that the character of exchange events is likely to change in proportion to social and sectoral distance." However, Brady suggests (26, p. 314) that this hypothesis is likely to apply differentially "to individual as opposed to group exchange events, and that the most positive relationships tend to occur between generalized reciprocity and close-in social distance." His data tends to invalidate (26, p. 314) "the possibility of a strict linear transformation from generalized to negative reciprocity as social distance increases." Here Brady echoes Lebra's reminder that qualitative transformation along the spectrum should have been considered. Brady also found (26, p. 315) that "the generalized sphere of exchange for food is sometimes wider than the generalized sphere of exchange for other things, particularly in hospitality outputs," suggesting that perishables and durables should be considered to behave differently with respect to social distance.

Damas (33) finds in his Eskimo data that foodstuff is used for trade, i.e. balanced exchange, a good deal more than Sahlins' model would suggest. Secondly, among the Eskimo, kinship and community are not coterminous, and community considerations override kinship considerations in distribution of resources, contrary to Sahlins' hypothesis. Thirdly, Sahlins' model would have us believe that hunters and gatherers (such as Eskimos) should be primarily characterized by generalized reciprocity; but Damas finds a good deal of balanced and negative reciprocity as well as redistribution (which is supposed to be characteristic of a more complex, chiefdom level society) among them. In spite of these criticisms and suggestions for modifications, Sahlins' model at present stands as one of the most widely debated, along with Lévi-Strauss's.

The "generalized-balanced-negative" typology reminds us of another in the game theory: they are positive-sum, zero-sum, and negative-sum games. In a positive-sum game, as applied to exchange, both parties to an exchange relationship stand to gain through the give and take, for both sides give up certain resources which they need less in exchange for some other resources which they need more (and which the other party has and is willing to give). The perceived value of what one has obtained thus is greater than the perceived value of what he has given up or what he had before the exchange transaction. In this sense, exchange as a positive-sum game enables both parties to profit from the relationship. In a zero-sum game, an example of which is Foster's "image of limited good" (48), ego's gain is alter's loss in precise equivalence, a point of view which Parkin assumes with respect to exchange theory and leads him to assert that men in exchange are necessarily in competition for valued objects (101, p. 165). Lastly, the negative-sum game implies that loss or injury is sustained by each party through exchange, and is of course intimately tied in with the so-called "negative exchange." I have already noted the inadequate understanding or integration of negative exchange in the model for social exchange.

The game-theoretical typology above is not strictly a parallel of Sahlins' typology. Though it has seldom been used in exchange framework, it may prove to be a useful frame of reference in organizing exchange data and beckons further research in this area.

4. *Direct vs indirect exchange.* This distinction originates from Lévi-Strauss's "restricted-generalized" dichotomy (80). However, because Sahlins' usage of "generalized reciprocity" has been widely adopted, to avoid confusion we shall use the terms "direct" and "indirect." "Direct exchange" refers to exchange of resources between two parties whereby return of resources given by A to B is made directly back to A from B. In indirect exchange, at least three units are involved in exchange, such that A gives resources to B, who in turn gives resources to C, etc, until the last unit gives to A, thus completing the cycles. Lebra's "circular transference" corresponds to this type (76, p. 559).

As is well known, for Lévi-Strauss this distinction was applied to forms of cross-cousin marriage, such that bilateral cross-cousin marriage was an example of direct (or restricted) exchange, and unilateral (either patrilateral or matrilateral) cross-cousin marriage was a case of indirect (or generalized) exchange.

Ekeh considers Lévi-Strauss's concepts of direct (restricted) and indirect (generalized) exchange not refined enough and has offered further elaborations (37, p. 209). He suggests two forms of direct (restricted) exchange: *exclusive,* in which "the dyadic relationships are totally isolated"; and *inclusive,* in which "the dyadic relationships are implicated in a network with other dyadic exchange relationships." In my view, "exclusive, restricted exchange" is a vacuous category because except for dyads in imaginary worlds, such as Adam and Eve or Robinson Crusoe and Friday, no dyad exists totally isolated.

Ekeh also proposes a subdivision of "indirect (generalized) exchange" into "chain generalized exchange," which is the same as what we have defined as indirect exchange above, and "net generalized exchange," in which each unit of a group acts in relation to the rest of the group. There are two subtypes here. "Group-focused generalized exchange," which may be represented as: (A → BCD; B → ACD; C → ABD; D → ABC), meaning each unit contributes to the welfare of the group, but does this separately. In the other subtype, "individual-focused generalized exchange," represented as (ABC → D; ABD → C; ACD → B; BCD → A), the group helps each of its member units separately. Individual members of a group taking turns to stand in sentry may be an example of the group-focused generalized exchange. Villagers going from household to household helping in harvesting, as Embree reports of *kattari* (38, p. 135) in Japan, or a hunting band sharing the kill of a member [Denton (35), pp. 48–50] are instances of individual-focused generalized exchange.

While an indirect exchange such as cross-cousin marriage may appear to admit of one-way flow of women only, it should be remembered that in most such marriages, some form of bride compensation is given to the wife-giving group. This fact yields two consequences. One is that there are two cycles moving in opposite directions simultaneously, women moving in one direction and bride compensation in the other. The Trobriand kula ring, as reported by Malinowski (87), where arm bands circulate in one direction and necklaces in the opposite, is another example of double-cycled indirect exchange. A second consequence of this system is that each dyad in the system is engaged in direct exchange and that the whole cycle consists of a series of pairs connected like links in a chain.

5. *Horizontal vs vertical exchange.* Equal or egalitarian exchange is one in which values of resources exchanged are roughly the same, so that there is no enduring or clear-cut debt that one side owes the other. In egalitarian exchange, as between friends, there may be temporary "debt" but this is repaid in due course, restoring the balance. The balance restored or maintained need not be exact; in fact, in some respects it may be better not to strike the precise balance in that a small debt would be a symbolic reminder to the continuing relationship between the actor and alter (53). Such imbalance, however, is small enough and can be repaid easily with the resources one controls. Such is not the case with vertical or hierarchical exchange. Here resources controlled by the two parties are so vastly different in value that it would not be possible for the subordinate to pay back what the superior has given. What the superior controls may be employment opportunities, connection with government offices, money, and other material resources, of which the subordinate is in need, but to which he has no direct access.

If we combine the generalized/balanced dichotomy with the horizontal/vertical dichotomy, we have the following two-by-two table, with examples filling the appropriate cells (Figure 1). Close friends are horizontal in relationship and generalized in exchange, as defined by Sahlins, in comparison with a relationship which obtains between salesman and customer, where there is no super- or subordination any more

	Horizontal	Vertical
Generalized	Friend-friend	Melanesian big-man Polynesian Chieftainship Patron-client
Balanced	Salesman-customer	Employer-employee

Figure 1 Types of exchange relations.

than in a friendship, but the exchange relationship is strictly balanced. These relations again differ from vertical ones. The vertical-generalized category includes a kinship-based rank system of the kind Sahlins discusses (109; 111, pp. 158–64), examples of which are the Melanesian big-man and the Polynesian chieftainship. In the latter, "where kinship-rank reciprocity is laid down by office and political groupings, and becomes *sui generis* by virtue of customary duty" (111, p. 164), exchange takes on the character of chiefly redistribution, in the tripartite reciprocity-redistribution-market classification of the substantivist economic anthropology (102). Note that in this scheme of Sahlins', redistribution is no less an exchange relationship than reciprocity through gift exchange among kinsmen, even though the nomenclature juxtaposes "redistribution" with "reciprocity" as if they are antitheses. "Redistribution" in this scheme is a species of exchange imbedded in a hierarchical structure implying a resource differential. Incidentally, Sahlins' hypothesis concerning exchange and hierarchy receives confirmation from Brady (26, p. 314). In the Ellice Islands, he finds that with respect to the relationship between rank and reciprocity, "Greater existing rank, or aspirations for rank and prestige, lead some individuals to give away items through the morality of *noblesse oblige* when the initiator of a transaction intends to negotiate a 'trade' or obtain customary equivalence in a commercial exchange. The donor thereby transforms a potentially balanced exchange to a more generalized form."

Another generalized-vertical type of relationship, distinguished from big-man and chieftainship and occurring in the absence of kinship ties, is the patron-clientship and brokerage (131). Brokerage differs from patronage analytically in that a broker is able to obtain from another source (through personal contact, etc) whatever resources are desired by his client, whereas a patron possesses himself resources desired by his clients. Empirically, of course, one is likely to find the two roles combined in one person in varying degrees. The patron-client and brokerage relationships have been widely reported in ethnographic literature from Latin America (45, 83, 128), Asia (11, 18, 27, 103, 117–119), Europe (21, 29, 120), and North America (32, 99, 100).

Reinterpreting the traditional patron-client data in the exchange framework, however, is a new endeavor, and attempts are few and far between (81, pp. 5–9). Southeast Asian cases indicate changing relationship resulting from economic and political changes. Institution of electoral democracy in recent years there, for example, has necessitated erstwhile patrons, if they are to maintain a power base in the new political structure, to become patrons for a great many people at a grassroot level in an effort to secure a large electoral base. Befu (14) argues that bureaucratic structure is compatible with patron-client relationship, which may be a reason for the widespread persistence of patron-client relationships in developing countries. When a successful patron with much personal fund of resources and a loyal following becomes a bureaucrat, an office holder, he has two alternatives. On one hand, he can largely ignore the organizational goal of the bureaucracy and take advantage of the power and privilege ascribed to the office for personal gain at the expense of undermining the bureaucracy's goal. It is possible, on the other hand, for a patron-office holder to use his personal resources for the furtherance of bureaucratic goals.

BALANCING

The question of balance is inextricably tied in with the concept of social exchange. Balancing necessarily implies comparison of at least two elements. This comparison may be relative or absolute. In the former, A is said to be "greater" or "less" than B; in the latter, comparison is based on the difference between two numerical values assigned to A and B. Homans has opted for the former method (59, p. 43; 60, p. 221), Deutch's criticism (36, pp. 160–61) to the contrary notwithstanding. It is understandable that Heath, who adopts economic theory as his model for social exchange, would assume quantitative measurability, as when he asserts (56, p. 26) that "some *numerical* probability can be assigned to the likelihood that a particular outcome will follow a particular course of action" (italics added). Offhand it may seem plausible to assume, as Blau does (19, p. 171), that "the worth (utility) of the subordination he [a consultant] receives in terms of the worth of the cost in time he incurs, decreases at an accelerated rate with increasing consultations" and to plot this function in indifference curves (19, p. 173). This assertion assumes, however, that contents and quality of advice are uniform and that the nature of subordination does not vary from one case to another—an assumption which is not likely to receive empirical validation.

Whether one adopts quantitative or relative valuation, there seems to be at least two different approaches in assessing balance. One is to compare the cost one incurs with the reward he receives in a given exchange relationship (which may involve a number of transactions). "Cost" here may be defined as the resource one gives to the other party, or it may be defined, as Homans does (59, pp. 57–61), as alternative courses of action which one gives up in favor of the exchange one in fact has transacted. If one perceives the cost to be equal to the reward, then one may speak of a balance in this exchange relationship. A second way of conceiving balance is to compare one's own profit (reward minus cost) with the other party's profit. If the profit values are about the same, then a balance may be said to have been struck. It should be noted that valuation in this context refers to subjectively perceived valuation and comparison, and that the same resource may be differentially valuated by the giver and the receiver. In fact, in many cases, Person gives up what he has because for him the resource for him is dispensable (i.e. in some sense unneeded), and gives it to Other because he believes Other will find it useful. Thus the same resource is more highly valued by the one who receives it than by the one who gives it. It is for this reason that social exchange is often regarded as a positive-sum game in which both sides end up having more value than before the transaction.

In anthropological literature, this notion of perceived valuation is not often used. Instead, objects to be exchanged are assumed to have some agreed upon, objective value which is the same for all concerned. There is no question that society defines the approximate "value" of exchange resources, whether it be a smile, a kiss, an overnight stay at a friend's house. However, it is worth repeating that this societal definition is only approximate, with a lattitude within which variation on the basis of subjective perception is legitimate.

Central to the process of balancing is the concept of distributive justice: justice in the distribution of rewards and costs (3, 59). In Homans' words (59, p. 75), "a man in an exchange relation with another will expect that the rewards of each man be proportional to his costs—the greater the rewards, the greater the costs—and that the net rewards, or profits, of each man be proportional to his investments." When distributive justice is realized, one may say that a balance is struck in the relationship. When not, according to Homans (59, p. 75), a man reacts with anger. Thus, to Homans, the question of whether a person is engaged in fair exchange with another is in the final analysis based on emotional reaction to his perception of cost accounting, and has nothing fundamentally to do with moral justice.

Anthropologists are not likely to be satisfied with Homans' psychological reductionism. Notion of normative standards—publicly agreed upon values of resources, approximate though they may be—weighs heavily upon ethnographic description. How much a kin group would pay another for bride compensation, how much assistance a revenge group would receive from friends, how willing a patron would be to help one of his clients, etc, are not basically an individual psychological matter, but a question about which there is considerable societal consensus. It is this consensus which I called "cultural rules." What we have not seen much and are badly in need of is an attempt at an ethnographic description which explicitly defines cultural rules and at the same time examines individual strategies in an exchange model.

Pryor & Graburn (104) raise a serious question regarding the nature and conception of balance. In their careful statistical analysis of Eskimo data on giving and receiving of resources, they discovered that by and large balance is not struck between a pair of giver and receiver, throwing grave doubts as to the utility of the concept of balance and to the nature of exchange in egalitarian societies. What they did find is that at an ideological level, Eskimos do exhort reciprocity and balancing of give-and-take. In fact, Pryor & Graburn maintain that the ideological conviction of reciprocity seems to serve as an effective cover or "blind" for empirical imbalance, enabling the imbalance to continue. This suggests the necessity of separating cultural ideology from actual practice, a rather elementary methodological point in anthropology which exchange theorists have neglected to observe.

RESOURCE TYPES

Since just about anything under the sun from smile and expression of respect to giving of advice and material rewards can all serve as resources for exchange, how are we to conceptualize or systematize all different kinds of resources? The most basic division in this respect is between positive and negative resources, the former being those which are sought after and the latter those avoided. We have already elaborated on the problematic nature of negative exchange and shall pass this topic here. One way of dealing with the question of typology is to reduce all resources to one category of phenomena. Nord (95), for one, argues that social exchange, in the final analysis, is a matter of seeking and conferring approval. Approval to him is the psychological currency of social exchange. On this assumption, be brings together a large body of research findings, mostly in social psychology, and reanalyzes them in an exchange framework. A problem with this approach is that people seek to obtain many other kinds of things in social exchange besides approval. A recent study by Hurlbert (63), for example, illustrates the importance of social status expressed in prestige, in faculty appointments and doctoral training in anthropology. Doctoral degrees are the valuables to be exchanged among departments. If two departments can give each other their products, then they each confer prestige upon the other. If a recipient department cannot reciprocate and give a PhD to the department from which it receives one, then prestige flows one way.

For cultural anthropologists, what is important is the realization that prestige, status approval, respect, love, affection, sympathy, etc, are English words, each of which has a somewhat different meaning. To try to group all these under a single heading of positive sentiment of some sort would do injustice to the semantic and symbolic realities of these expressions.

Another mode of conceptualizing resource types is Blau's pair, "intrinsic" vs "extrinsic" (19, pp. 35–38, 95–96), or Kapferer's pair, "sociational" vs "instrumental" (65, p. 164), the two pairs being essentially synonymous. The former, in Kapferer's words, refers to those transactions "which are ends in themselves and not detachable from their source," and the latter to those "which are essentially detachable from their source and are means to ends rather than ends in themselves." a difficulty of these schemes is that concrete behavior itself is being classified as being one or the other, when in reality concrete behavior is usually a combination of the two elements in varying degrees. Befu's (14) pair, "expressivity" vs "instrumentality," though in substance the same as Blau's and Kapferer's, avoids this difficulty by defining expressivity and instrumentality as aspects of an act and by assuming a given exchange act to manifest both qualities in varying proportion.

Using this distinction, Befu and his associates investigated the relationship between these two variables in Japan. Their as yet unpublished findings show that an exchange act (or resource) which is regarded as high in instrumentality, such as serving as guarantor or extending a personal loan, is also high in expressive value, and vice versa. Also, a person who is a source of much expressivity is one who provides a great deal of instrumental resources, and vice versa.

This set of findings contrasts with Foa & Foa's findings (44) from the United States indicating possible differences in cultural disposition toward social exchange. Foa & Foa classify resources into six categories: love, status, information, money, goods, and services. These six are arranged in a "circumplex (44, p. 82, see Figure 2), such that the two opposites (e.g. love and money or status and goods) are least likely to be exchanged for each other and that the two adjacent categories, such as

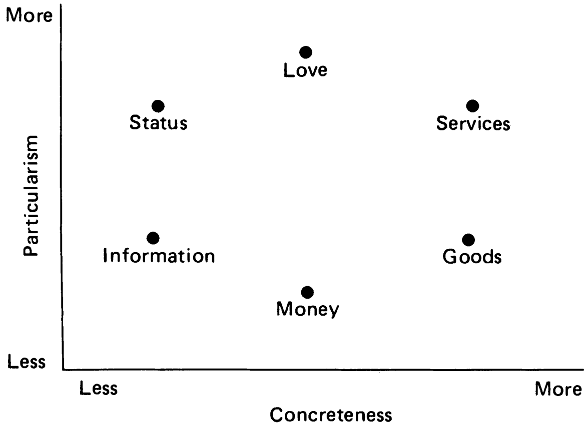

Figure 2 The cognitive structure of resource classes.

love and status or money and information, are most likely to be exchanged. Foa & Foa's findings are not directly comparable to those of Befu and his associates, thus requiring caution in interpretation. It appears, however, that Japanese tend to exchange instrumental values and expressive values simultaneously and that as their relationship becomes more and more intrinsically satisfying to one another, they become more and more useful to each other. Foa & Foa's findings suggest that in contrast to the Japanese pattern of exchange, in the United States instrumental relationship, for example involving exchange of money, is kept separate from expressive relationship where affect is exchanged.

SPHERES OF EXCHANGE

Bohannan (20) has divided Tiv economy into three spheres. The first, in order of moral ranking from the lowest to the highest, consists primarily of foodstuffs and is associated with the market. The second consists of prestige items, such as slaves, cattle, metal bars, ritual offices, etc. The third is largely restricted to rights in women, who are exchanged in marriage. Essential in Bohannan's definition of sphere are (*a*) moral ranking of spheres and (*b*) nonoverlapping of categories of resources among spheres. While exchange spheres manifesting these features are known elsewhere in the world, e.g. Tikopia (43) and New Guinea (112), they are far from universal. Barth (9, p. 157), for one, failed to find them among the Fur. Against Bohannan's definition, Kapferer (65, p. 190) uses the term "transactional sphere" to refer to a set of individuals involved in transactional activity who place similar value on the benefits and services transacted.

Problems arise with Bohannan's definition in cultures, such as with the Pedi (114), where money is used both in market exchange and in bridal transactions. Kapferer's definition also has difficulty in that one pair of individuals can engage in exchange in two different spheres, as when they are employer and employee and are friends at the same time, thus engaging both in market and social exchange. My proposal is to define "sphere of exchange" in terms of a system of valuation of resources, such that a given resource would have approximately the same value in a given sphere, but receives a different valuation in another. Thus a cigarette would have a certain definable value in the market, but acquires a different one when given to a friend as a gift. Even money, when it enters a social sphere of exchange, is no longer interpreted on its face value but is evaluated in part on the basis of social circumstances (64). Distinction between the market and the social sphere of exchange is an important one, as Bennett has cogently pointed out (17, p. 305). Blau (19, p. 94) and Heath, following Blau (56, p. 56), have claimed that the two spheres are distinguished by the element of trust, being present in the social sphere and absent in the market. This is a gross distortion of the reality. Market transactions cannot be carried out without mutual trust among participants, be they bankers and account holders or buyers and sellers.

SYMBOLIC EXCHANGE

I have alluded to the importance of semantic and symbolic aspects of exchange above. Conceptualizing exchange in terms of transmission of messages is a tradition going back to Lévi-Strauss and Mauss on the one hand and to symbolic interactionists of the Chicago school on the other (1, 122, 123). Reflecting this interest, half of the papers contributed to the recent Kapferer volume deal with transaction of meanings and symbols (32, 51, 88, 100, 101, 114). Among them, Sansom's concept of "signal transaction" is of particular interest (114). Among the Pedi, as mentioned above, bridewealth is nowadays paid in cash. But in order to keep bridewealth payment out of the sphere of monetized market exchange, they use a metaphor of domestic animals like cattle and sheep in reference to units of money to be paid in bridewealth. In Jasper, according to Bennett (17), the reverse is true. There farmers exchange labor, borrow each other's equipment etc in a system of exchange entirely apart from the national market economy, but use the metaphor of the latter sphere, such as "buy," "sell," "loan," etc to refer to their intracommunity exchange transactions. Finally, Goody's analysis of greetings among the Gonja (52a) shows that they use greetings as symbolic gifts and gifts as symbolic greetings.

POWER

Though several definitions of power have been offered by exchange theorists, probably the most useful one is that proposed by Emerson (39–41) and essentially followed by Anderson & Befu (4), Blau (19), and Foa & Foa (44). Emerson conceives exchange relationship as being predicated upon dependence of two parties upon each other's resources. To the extent that Person is unwilling to voluntarily surrender resource desired by Other and able to use this resource as a "carrot," to force, coerce, or induce compliance upon the other party, one is said to have power over the other party. This fact then allows both parties to have power over each other.

Thus power is not conceived of as a unilateral relationship where if Person has power over Other, then Other does not have power over Person. Instead, power is a bilateral relationship of each potentially having power over the other. In contract negotation between employer and labor union, for example, the former's resources include ability to improve labor conditions such as wage and fringe benefits and the latter's resources, power to withhold labor through strike. Thus both sides can be seen to have potential power over the other. When there is a clear differential between the degree of dependence of one party over the other, then one may say that there is power advantage of one over the other.

An important consequence of this definition of power is that the amount of power becomes a function of the availability of alternative sources from which the compliant can obtain needed resources. This is illustrated in Barth's analysis of the Swat Pathans (7), among whom the chief must be judicial in his exercise of power because his followers can leave him and go to another chief and receive protection. Similarly, in central Africa (52) when people are not confined to a village and instead can leave one and go to another if the village headman is too demanding, the headman's power is that much weaker. By the same token, for the power holder, availability of alternative sources of labor, service, etc increases his power. When there is a large pool of unemployed workers, it is the "buyer's market" in that the employer can demand and expect more from his workers because the employer can fire the recalcitrant and hire more obedient workers who are willing to work more for less reward. Patron-client relationship is a special type of power relation which we have already discussed above, and will not be taken up in this section.

Two sources of power must be clearly distinguished: personal and institutional. When the resources given out in exchange for compliance are personal possessions, as they are for a patron in most cases, we speak of personal power. Institutional power is found in an "office" which involves the right to exercise power. Thus anyone who assumes that office is entitled to exercise power as prescribed for the office, even though qualifications for assuming the office may not have anything to do with one's ability to exercise the power of the office. The distinction here is best illustrated with the Melanesian big-man and the Polynesian chieftain. The former acquires his position as a big-man by dint of his own effort. Being a son of a big-man often helps, as Strathern points out (127, pp. 210–11). "But a good start does not guarantee success, for a son must be a good manager and speaker on his own account if he is to become a big-man (127, p. 211)." On the other hand, when power is institutionalized in an office such as a chieftainship, one can hold the office and exercise the power of the office without having appropriate qualifications to do so, e.g. merely by being born a son of a chief. Appreciation of this distinction is crucial for a clear analysis of power in the context of social exchange. Another distinction to be noted has to do with kinds of powers. The big-man's exercise of power is clearly in the realm of social exchange in that his power is obtained, maintained, and exercised in exchange for various benefits he provides his followers and rival big-men. A chief or king's power, on the other hand, may not be entirely of this sort; most likely it is based on a combination of coercive, normative and remunerative sources, the first of which are, as we saw earlier, outside the domain of social exchange.

FUNCTION

Although as Mulkay (93) has demonstrated in his critique, social exchange theory has developed out of dissatisfaction and rejection of the conventional structural-functional approach, many empirical studies of exchange are still functionalist in approach . Two major functions of exchange identified here are (*a*) saving and investment and (*b*) social integration. These will be discussed in turn below.

To the extent that one has some control or knowledge as to what will be returned, giving serves the purposes of savings and investment. Although in social exchange, the giver is normally enjoined from specifying what is to be given back to him in return, in most cases cultural rules specify in varying degrees what are appropriate categories of resources to be returned. Thus by knowing what one may get in return and who is likely to provide maximum return, one can maximize the investment in the giving of one's resources. This saving function is well illustrated in reports by Beals (10), Bennett (17), Lombardi (82), Lomnitz (84–86), and Stack (126).

Lombardi's, Lomnitz's, and Stack's studies deal with the urban poor, and demonstrate the critical function which informal social exchange of material resources plays in keeping families above subsistence level, something which formal institutions such as employment and social security programs alone cannot accomplish. Bennett's study shows that North American farmers in Northern Plains are able to rely on assistance in labor and equipment from fellow farmers because they have provided similar assistance to them in the past. Similarly, in Oaxaca, according to Beals, gifts are given consciously as investment, to be returned at strategic moments. Although somewhat different, Gregory's reanalysis of Foster's concept of the image of limited good in terms of "expectation of circumstantially balanced reciprocity" is an attempt to see an exchange system as underwriting the economic security of the community.

If savings and investment are the major functions of social exchange from the "motivational" perspective, integration is the most obvious function in the "institutional" approach, as Lévi-Strauss has so abundantly shown in his theory of cross-cousin marriage. When Paine (100) argues that what he calls the "incorporation" mode, i.e. the institutional approach—but not the "negotiative" mode, i.e. the motivational approach—of analysis would throw light on group integration, he is echoing Lévi-Strauss's position. The theme of alliance between exchanging communities is seen in Malinowski's account of the kula ring (87) as well as in Strathern's analysis of *moka* in Mt. Hagen, New Guinea (127). The theme of community integration is evident also in Vatuk's study of gift-giving in an urban neighborhood in India and also in Rehfisch's study of competitive gift exchange between members of different villages among the Mambila (104a). Though somewhat different, Johnson's study of gift-giving among Hawaiian Japanese also falls in this category. Her findings that status maintenance, generational continuity, conflict resolution, and status equalization are accomplished by gift-giving indicate integrative functions of social exchange, as does Young's interpretation that the institution of *abutu* (competitive food exchange) serves the function of social control among the Kaluna in Massim (132).

CONCLUSION

Looking at the state of the field, one gets the distinct impression that theory has run ahead of empirical testing. A good deal of ink has been spilled over the conceptual status and theoretical nature of social exchange without sufficient empirical checking of the usefulness of concepts and models. We must make a concerted effort to gather data and test propositions generated from our models.

A major contribution of social exchange theory is that it has offered a frame of analysis at the collectivity level and also at the individual level and that it has at least attempted to bridge the two levels, in spite of claims by Ekeh and others that this is impossible. The field thus enables those working primarily in terms of cultural rules and those interested in strategy to converge and deal with common problems. In this attempt we have been able to combine the disciplines of psychology and anthropology without taking the conventional Freudian or neo-Freudian stand.

A strength of exchange theory is its linkage with economic and political anthropology. Relations to economics and economic anthropology are quite important. How important it is would depend on whose approach one takes. For those of Heath's persuasion, economics provides the foundation upon which social exchange theory is to be built. For those not so bent on the superiority of economics, social and market exchange are both species of exchange, perhaps of coequal level though belonging to different spheres. As such, at some abstract level, social and market exchange are encompassed by a common theoretical umbrella. A rapprochement between the two fields is inevitable as well as desirable.

Relationship to political science is also obvious from the point of view of the definition of power. If politics has to do with "who gets what, when, and how," then it is a question of acquiring resources and of strategies of acquiring them. Social exchange provides a framework in which strategies are to be analyzed. Its usefulness has been demonstrated by a number of empirical studies by political scientists (72, 77, 103, 117–119).

One of the areas in which little work has been done so far is the linkage of social exchange theory with network theory (e.g. 5, 6, 22). A fruitful start has been seen in Kapferer's study of African factory workers (65), but it remains the only major attempt in this direction. Social exchange theory focuses on dyads as dyads. Even when a third party is introduced, the basic framework is that developed in dyadic exchange. Social network theory, on the other hand, begins with the assumption that an individual is interacting simultaneously with a large number of people and develops its frame of analysis on this basis. It goes without saying that what network theory takes as given (multiple relations) is much more realistic than a series of dyads which exchange theory takes as the starting point. Moreover, network theory allows indirect relationships—friends of friends of friends—encompassed in its theoretical constructs, something which exchange theory cannot do very well except obliquely, for example, by linking a series of dyads in a chain. On the other hand, social exchange theory is better suited to analyzing processes, strategies, and functions, while network theory is better at developing structural framework. A combination of these two approaches then should yield a rather powerful theoretical basis to analyze social phenomena.

We hope that social exchange approach will receive more attention in the future and be further developed and revised in the areas and directions indicated above. There is no claim made here that social exchange theory will be a "unified theory" which would account for most of social and cultural phenomena. The claim made here is much more modest, yet even that modest degree of accomplishment awaits future research.

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